

Principles of Programming Languages

Polymorphism. Higher-order functions. Logic in Coq.

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Outline

Induction revisited

Polymorphism

Higher-order functions

Logic in Coq

Induction revisited

- ▶ Natural numbers

Inductive `Nat` := `O` : `Nat` | `S` : `Nat` -> `Nat`.

- ▶ Transitivity: strong vs. weak inductive hypothesis

Lemma `le_Trans` :
 forall `m n p`,
 `le_Nat m n = true` ->
 `le_Nat n p = true` ->
 `le_Nat m p = true`.

Proof.

(Demo *)*

Lists

- ▶ Lists of natural numbers:

```
Inductive ListNat :=  
  | Nil : ListNat  
  | Cons : Nat -> ListNat -> ListNat.
```

- ▶ Lists of booleans:

```
Inductive ListBool :=  
  | Nil : ListBool  
  | Cons : bool -> ListBool -> ListBool.
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Functions on lists

- ▶ Length of lists of natural numbers:

```
Fixpoint length (l : ListNat) :=  
match l with  
| Nil => 0  
| Cons _ l' => S (length l')  
end.
```

- ▶ Length of lists of booleans:

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Fixpoint length (l : ListBool) :=  
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Polymorphism

- ▶ Solution: polymorphism
- ▶ Polymorphic lists in Coq:

```
Inductive List (T : Type) : Type :=  
  | Nil : List T  
  | Cons : T -> List T -> List T.
```

- ▶ This is a similar definition of lists but this one is parametric in the type of its elements!
- ▶ List is a *function* from **Types** to *inductive* definitions!

```
Check List.  
List:
```

Type -> **Type**

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- ▶ Here is the definition of lists of naturals:

Definition `ListNat := List Nat.`

- ▶ Here is the definition of lists of booleans:

Definition `ListBool := List bool.`

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Polymorphism

- ▶ Automatically, the constructors are parametric too:

```
Check Nil.
```

```
Nil
```

```
: forall T : Type, List T
```

```
Check Cons.
```

```
Cons
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```
: forall T : Type, T -> List T -> List T
```

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Polymorphism: Functions

- Functions have polymorphic versions as well:

```
Fixpoint length (T : Type) (l : List T) : nat :=  
  match l with  
    | Nil _ => 0  
    | Cons _ _ l' => S (length T l')  
end.
```


Implicit arguments

- ▶ Calling the function as below could be cumbersome:

```
Compute length Nat (Cons Nat 0 (Nil Nat)).  
= 1  
: nat
```

- ▶ The type is passed to the function and all the constructors
- ▶ Solution: Implicit arguments

```
Arguments Nil {T}.  
Arguments Cons {T}.  
Arguments length {T}.  
Compute length (Cons 0 Nil).  
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Higher-order functions

- ▶ Higher-order functions: functions that manipulate other functions
 - ▶ Functions can take other functions as input parameters
 - ▶ Functions can return other functions
- ▶ Example: filter a list using $f : T \rightarrow \text{bool}$:

```
Fixpoint filter {T : Type}  
              (f : T -> bool)  
              (l : List T) : List T :=  
  
  match l with  
  | Nil => Nil  
  | Cons x xs => if (f x)  
                  then Cons x (filter f xs)  
                  else filter f xs  
  
end.
```

Usage of the `filter` function

- First, we need a function `f : T -> bool` that is passed as an argument to `filter`:

Definition `has_one_digit (n : nat) := leb n 9.`

Check `has_one_digit.`

```
has_one_digit
  : nat -> bool
```

- The function `has_one_digit` returns `true` if the argument `n` is a single digit number, and `false` otherwise

Usage of the `filter` function

- ▶ Second, pick an example of a list

Example `num_list :=`
`Cons 2 (Cons 15 (Cons 7 (Cons 18 Nil)))`.

- ▶ `filter` call with `has_one_digit` as argument:

Compute `filter has_one_digit num_list`.
`= Cons 2 (Cons 7 Nil)`
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Anonymous functions

- ▶ We can define functions “on the fly” without declaring them explicitly and use them by their name
- ▶ Example: an anonymous function having the same functionality as `has_one_digit`

```
Check (fun n => leb n 9) .  
fun n : nat => n <=? 9  
      : nat -> bool
```

- ▶ The `<=?` is just a notation for Coq's builtin function `leb`

Back to our `filter` function

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- ▶ `filter` call with an anonymous function as argument:

Compute `filter (fun n => leb n 9) num_list.`
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Compute filter (fun n => leb n 9) num_list.  
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  : List nat.
```

Functions that return other functions

- ▶ Classical example: function composition

```
Definition compose {A : Type}  
                {B : Type}  
                {C : Type}  
                (f : B -> C)  
                (g : A -> B) :=  
fun x => f (g x) .
```

Type variables

- The type of `compose`

Check `compose`.

`compose`

$$: (?B \rightarrow ?C) \rightarrow (?A \rightarrow ?B) \rightarrow ?A \rightarrow ?C$$

where

`?A` : [| - **Type**]

`?B` : [| - **Type**]

`?C` : [| - **Type**]

Using compose

- ▶ The type of `compose` when called:

```
Check compose (fun x => x * 2)
              (fun x => x + 2) .
compose (fun x : nat => x * 2)
       (fun x : nat => x + 2)
      : nat -> nat.
```

- ▶ Actual call:

```
Compute compose (fun x : nat => x * 2)
               (fun x : nat => x + 2)
              3.
= 10
: nat
```

Using compose

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Check compose (fun x => x * 2)
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Logic in Coq. Understanding **Props**

- ▶ In Coq we can *state* propositions
- ▶ Moreover, we can *prove* them
- ▶ Propositions have a type of their own called **Prop**

<code>Check 10 = 10.</code>	<code>Check 10 = 11.</code>
<code>10 = 10</code>	<code>10 = 11</code>
<code>: Prop</code>	<code>: Prop</code>

- ▶ Not all propositions are *provable*!

<code>Goal 10 = 10.</code>	<code>Goal 10 = 11.</code>
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Implications

- ▶ Most of the properties are formulated as implications
- ▶ Dealing with implications in proofs: the **intros** H tactic extracts the hypothesis $H : n = 0$:

```
Lemma simple_impl :  
  forall n, n = 0 -> n + 3 = 3.  
Proof.  
  intros n.  
  intros H. (* H is the lhs of -> *)  
  rewrite H.  
  simpl.  
  reflexivity.  
Qed.
```

Implications

- ▶ Multiple implications are preferred instead of conjunctions because **intros** can extract the hypotheses easier:

```
Lemma not_so_simple_impl :  
  forall m n, m = 0 -> n = 0 -> n + m = 0.  
Proof.  
  intros m n Hm Hn.  
  (* Here, Hm is m = 0 and Hn is n = 0 *)  
  rewrite Hn.  
  rewrite Hm.  
  simpl.  
  reflexivity.  
Qed.
```

Implications

- Naturally, one would formulate this property as:

```
Lemma not_so_simple_impl :  
  forall m n, m = 0 /\ n = 0 -> n + m = 0.  
instead of
```

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Lemma not_so_simple_impl :  
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- But using **intros** will result in the following goal:

```
1 subgoal (ID 22)  
  
m, n : nat  
H : m = 0 /\ n = 0 (* <- not convenient *)  
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$n + m = 0$

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Implications and conjunctions

We can use implications instead of conjunctions:

- ▶ $\varphi_1 \rightarrow (\varphi_2 \rightarrow \varphi) \equiv \neg\varphi_1 \vee (\varphi_2 \rightarrow \varphi) \equiv \neg\varphi_1 \vee (\neg\varphi_2 \vee \varphi)$
- ▶ $(\varphi_1 \wedge \varphi_2) \rightarrow \varphi \equiv \neg(\varphi_1 \wedge \varphi_2) \vee \varphi \equiv (\neg\varphi_1 \vee \neg\varphi_2) \vee \varphi$
- ▶ Since $\neg\varphi_1 \vee (\neg\varphi_2 \vee \varphi) \equiv (\neg\varphi_1 \vee \neg\varphi_2) \vee \varphi$ (because $\vee$ is associative) we also have by transitivity

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Conjunction as goals

- ▶ Using the **split** tactic:

```
Lemma simple_conjunction:  
  2 + 3 = 5 /\ 5 + 5 = 10.
```

Proof.

```
  split.
```

```
  - simpl. reflexivity.
```

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Qed.

- ▶ When the same tactics apply to both goals generated by **split** we can use semicolon ; to apply the next tactics to both goals:

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Conjunction as hypothesis

There are two ways of breaking conjunctions in separate hypotheses:

- ▶ Using **destruct**:

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Lemma conjunction_as_hypothesis:
```

```
  forall m n, n = 0 /\ m = 0 -> n + 3 = 3.
```

```
Proof.
```

```
  intros m n Hnm.
```

```
  destruct Hnm as [Hn Hm].
```

```
  rewrite Hn. simpl. reflexivity.
```

```
Qed.
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- ▶ Using **intros** with sugar syntax for conjunctions:

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```

Disjunction as goal

There are two ways of proving a disjunction:

- ▶ Either prove the left prop using **left**:

```
Lemma simple_disjunction_left:  
  2 + 3 = 5 \/ 5 + 6 = 10.
```

```
Proof.
```

```
  left.
```

```
  simpl.
```

```
  reflexivity.
```

```
Qed.
```

- ▶ Or prove the right right prop using **right**:

```
Lemma simple_disjunction_right:  
  2 + 8 = 5 \/ 5 + 5 = 10.
```

```
Proof.
```

```
  right.
```

```
  simpl.
```

```
  reflexivity.
```

```
Qed.
```

Disjunction as goal

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- ▶ Either prove the left prop using **left**:

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Qed.
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  reflexivity.
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Qed.
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Disjunction as hypothesis

When a disjunction is a hypothesis we need to prove that both parts of the disjunction actually imply the property to be proved.

- ▶ We can use `intros` to break the goal in two goals:

```
Lemma disjunction_as_hypothesis:
```

```
  forall n, n = 0 \/ 5 + 5 = 11 -> n + 3 = 3.
```

```
Proof.
```

```
  intros n [Hn | Hn].
```

```
  - rewrite Hn. simpl. reflexivity.
```

```
  - inversion Hn.
```

```
Qed.
```

- ▶ Or we can use `destruct` to generate the two goals:

```
Lemma disjunction_as_hypothesis':
```

```
  forall n, n = 0 \/ 5 + 5 = 11 -> n + 3 = 3.
```

```
Proof.
```

```
  intros n H.
```

```
  destruct H as [Hn | Hn].
```

```
  - rewrite Hn. simpl. reflexivity.
```

```
  - inversion Hn.
```

```
Qed.
```


Disjunction as hypothesis

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Lemma disjunction_as_hypothesis:

forall n, n = 0 $\wedge$ 5 + 5 = 11 $\rightarrow$ n + 3 = 3.

Proof.

intros n [Hn | Hn].

- **rewrite** Hn. **simpl.** **reflexivity.**
- **inversion** Hn.

Qed.

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Lemma disjunction_as_hypothesis':

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Disjunction as hypothesis

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```
  destruct H as [Hn | Hn].
```

```
  - rewrite Hn. simpl. reflexivity.
```

```
  - inversion Hn.
```

```
Qed.
```

Disjunctions

- ▶ If one part of the disjunction is not sufficient to prove the goal, then the entire proof fails:

Lemma `disjunction_as_hypothesis_unprovable:`

`forall n, n = 0 \ / 5 + 5 = 10 -> n + 3 = 3.`

Proof.

`intros n [Hn | Hn].`

`- rewrite Hn. simpl. reflexivity.`

`- (* stuck: can't prove this case *)`

`(* the hypothesis 5 + 5 = 10 is useless *)`

Abort.

Negations

- ▶ Negations are in fact implications $P \rightarrow \text{False}$ in Coq.
- ▶ We can use **unfold** in proofs to reveal implications:

Lemma simple_negation:

forall (x : nat), ~ x <> x.

Proof.

intros x.

unfold not.

(Here the goal is:*

x : nat

=====

*(x = x -> False) -> False *)*

intros Hx.

apply Hx.

reflexivity.

Qed.

Contradiction in proofs

- ▶ Sometimes we have to prove a goal by contradiction
- ▶ We can use **inversion**:

```
Theorem prove_false:  
  forall P, False -> P.
```

```
Proof.
```

```
  intros P HF.
```

```
  inversion HF.
```

```
Qed.
```

- ▶ Or we can use `ex falso`:

```
Theorem ex_falso:  
  forall P, False -> P.
```

```
Proof.
```

```
  intros P HF.
```

```
  ex falso.
```

```
  assumption.
```

```
Qed.
```

Existential quantifiers in goals

- ▶ In Coq, proving properties of the form $\exists x.P(x)$ requires a value v for x s.t. $P(v)$.
- ▶ In proofs, this is done via the **exists** tactic:

```
Lemma exists_zero:  
  exists (n : nat), n = 0.  
Proof.  
  (* 0 is the only value that  
    satisfies the equality *)  
  exists 0.  
  reflexivity.  
Qed.
```

Existential quantifiers in hypotheses

- ▶ When in hypotheses, existentially quantified properties $\exists x.P(x)$ can be decomposed into pairs $(v, P(v))$, where v is a name chosen for the value that satisfies P .
- ▶ This decomposition can be done via **destruct** or **intros** (as shown below):

Lemma exists_as_hypothesis:

```
forall m, (exists n, m = 2 + n) ->
  (exists n', m = 1 + n').
```

Proof.

```
intros m [n Hmn].
exists (1 + n).
rewrite Hmn.
simpl.
reflexivity.
```

Qed.

Universal quantifiers in hypotheses

- ▶ So far we proved universally quantified properties
- ▶ Universally quantified hypothesis can be applied to the other hypotheses:

Lemma forall_hyp:

```
forall n,  
  (forall m, m > 10 -> m > 0) -> n > 10 -> n > 0.
```

Proof.

```
intros n H H'.  
(* here H is instantiated over n > 10 *)  
apply H in H'.  
(* H changed to n > 0 *)  
assumption.
```

Qed.

Universal quantifiers in hypotheses

- Universally quantified hypotheses can be applied directly to goals:

```
Lemma forall_hyp':  
  forall n,  
    (forall m, m > 10 -> m > 0) -> n > 10 -> n > 0.
```

Proof.

```
  intros n H H'.  
  (here the conclusion of H matches the goal *)  
  apply H.  
  (the precondition of H needs to be proved *)  
  assumption.
```

Qed.

Conclusions

- ▶ We've learned about
 1. polymorphism
 2. higher-order functions
 3. anonymous functions
 4. logic in Coq and new tactics

- ▶ Bibliography:

1. Chaper Polymorphism and Higher-Order Functions and Chaper Logic in Coq in Software Foundations - Volume 1, Benjamin C. Pierce, Arthur Azevedo de Amorim, Chris Casinghino, Marco Gaboardi, Michael Greenberg, Cătălin Hrițcu, Vilhelm Sjöberg, Andrew Tolmach, Brent Yorgey
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 1. Chapter Polymorphism and Higher-Order Functions and Chapter Logic in Coq in Software Foundations - Volume 1, Benjamin C. Pierce, Arthur Azevedo de Amorim, Chris Casinghino, Marco Gaboardi, Michael Greenberg, Cătălin Hrițcu, Vilhelm Sjöberg, Andrew Tolmach, Brent Yorgey
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